munity, which thus can make judgments according to its own norms."[3] Professional control appears to have two sources. First, as a result of the long period of training undergone by the practitioner, he is expected to have acquired a body of expert knowledge and to have internalized a code of ethics which governs his professional conduct. Second, this self control is supported by the external surveillance of his conduct by peers, who are in a position to see his work, who have the skills to judge his performance, and who, since they have a personal stake in the reputation of their profession, are motivated to exercise the necessary sanctions. Professionals in a given field constitute a colleague group of equals. Every member of the group, but nobody else, is assumed to be qualified to make professional judgments. To implement these values, professional organizations usually seek to have them enacted into laws establishing the exclusive jurisdiction of the organized colleague group in a given area of competence and granting it the right to license practitioners. The medical profession, for example, enjoys such a mandate in the area of healing; psychologists are now seeking legislation to obtain the right to license psychological counselors and testers, and even other practices in which their expertise is more questionable.

It is clear that this type of control structure differs greatly from that employed in bureaucratic organizations. The source of discipline within a bureaucracy is not the colleague group but the hierarchy of authority. Performance is controlled by directives received from one's superiors rather than by self-imposed standards and peer-group surveillance, as is the case among professionals. This difference in social control, which is related to that between expertness and discipline discussed in Chapter II, constitutes the basic distinguishing feature between professional and bureaucratic institutions, which have otherwise many similar characteristics. The significance of this difference is brought into sharp relief if one examines people who are subject to both forms of social control; that is, professionals in a bureaucracy.[4]

3 William J. Goode, "Community within a Community: The Professions," *American Sociological Review,* 22 (1957), p. 198 (italics in original).

4 The model of the professions presented in this section is heavily indebted to the writings of Parsons and Hughes. See Talcott Parsons, *Essays in Sociological Theory* (2d ed.), Glencoe, Ill.: Free Press, 1954, pp. 34–49; and *The Social System,* Glencoe, Ill.: Free Press, 1951, pp. 433–436, 454–465; and Everett C. Hughes, *Men and Their Work,* Glencoe, Ill.: Free Press, 1958, pp. 78–87, 116–130, 140–142. Despite differences in their terminology both Parsons and Hughes appear to agree on the basic elements of the model with one major exception: Hughes focuses on self-determination by the colleague group as a crucial characteristic of professions, whereas Parsons hardly deals with this topic. In this respect we have followed Hughes since this factor seems to us to be essential for understanding the differences and conflicts between professionalization and bureaucratization.

Cosmopolitans and Locals.[5] The professions in industrial societies, having long been typified by the independent practitioner, appear to be undergoing a vast and far-reaching period of transition. During recent years a large number of the members of the "old" professions, such as physicians and lawyers, have become salaried employees of formal organizations; the "new" professional groups—social workers, librarians, nurses, accountants—are almost exclusively employed by organizations rather than engaged in private practice.[6] The salaried professionals are increasing in numbers many times faster than are the independent professionals.[7] The advantages to be gained from the collaboration of varied specialists in the same administrative structure and the increasing cost of professional equipment, much of which a single practitioner no longer can afford, are two factors that have encouraged the development of this new pattern of professionals working in formal organizations.

The transition from private practice to salaried employment has no doubt been facilitated by similarities in the principles that govern professional and bureaucratic practice. But while some of the principles are similar, others, as noted above, are divergent, and the latter have tended to engender conflicts between the professionals and their administrative organization. Conflicts created by the merger of the two institutional forms are resolved by the bureaucratized professionals in different ways. Some retain their identification with their professional group, are highly committed to their professional skills, and look for social support to professional colleagues outside the organization as well as within. Such involvement in the larger network of professional relations that cuts across organizations may be said to indicate a "professional" orientation. Others have less commitment to their specialized skills, come to identify with the particular organization by which they are employed and its program and procedures, and are more concerned with gaining the approval of administrative superiors inside the organization than that of professional colleagues outside. These may be said to have a "bureaucratic" orientation.

The tendency of some professionals to place their loyalty to their profession above their loyalty to their employer is a phenomenon that

[5] The terms "cosmopolitan" and "local" were first used by Merton to describe two different types of community leaders. See Robert K. Merton, *Social Theory and Social Structure* (2d ed.), Glencoe, Ill.: Free Press, 1957, pp. 387–420.

[6] See Hughes, *op. cit.*, pp. 131–138.

[7] Corey reports that the number of salaried professionals has increased thirty times over during the period from 1870 to 1940, while free professionals have grown at a much smaller rate during the same period. See Lewis Corey, "The Middle Class," *Antioch Review* (1945), pp. 1–20.

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has received considerable attention, although only recently has there been any systematic attempt to marshall evidence on the conditions under which this occurs. Hughes has long since called attention to the "itinerant" professional, who, being "more fully committed and more alert to the new developments, will move from place to place seeking ever more interesting, prestigeful, and perhaps more profitable positions."[8] Reissman confirmed this observation in his study of forty middle-level bureaucrats, suggesting the label "functional bureaucrat" for the type of worker "who is oriented toward and seeks his recognition from a given professional group outside of rather than within the bureaucracy."[9] Two recent studies of professional groups examine the conflict between the professional and the organization. Caplow and McGee in their study of the process of recruitment in a sample of universities provide a specific example of this loyalty struggle:

> Today, a scholar's orientation to his institution is apt to disorient him to his discipline and to affect his professional prestige unfavorably. Conversely, an orientation to his discipline will disorient him to his instituton, which he will regard as a temporary shelter where he can pursue his career as a member of the discipline.[10]

And in Wilensky's study of intellectuals in labor unions, the largest and most stable category was the "professional service" type, whose distinguishing characteristics included an orientation to a colleague group outside the union.[11] Unlike the other types described by Wilensky, these experts were less concerned about loyalty to the labor movement, many admitting that they would consider company employment. In general, they desired positions where their skills could be used to best advantage and were willing to consider any moves that would enhance this possibility.

The most systematic study of the conflict between professional and organizational commitment was carried out by Gouldner in a small private liberal-arts college.[12] Gouldner constructed Guttman-type scales to measure loyalty to the employing organization, commitment to specialized professional skills, and reference-group orientation. He found that high commitment to professional skills and an orientation to outside reference groups were associated with low loyalty to the college.

8 Hughes, *op. cit.*, p. 136.
9 Leonard Reissman, "A Study of Role Conceptions in Bureaucracy," *Social Forces*, 27 (1949), p. 308.
10 Theodore Caplow and Reece J. McGee, *The Academic Marketplace*, New York: Basic Books, 1958, p. 85.
11 Harold L. Wilensky, *Intellectuals in Labor Unions*, Glencoe, Ill.: Free Press, 1956, pp. 129–144.
12 Alvin W. Gouldner, "Cosmopolitans and Locals," *Administrative Science Quarterly*, 2 (1957–1958), pp. 281–306, 444 480.

Generalizing from his data, Gouldner concludes that although Weber implied that the more expert an organization's personnel, the more efficient and stable the organization, his findings suggest that "there seems to be some tension between an organization s bureaucratic needs for expertise and its social-system needs for loyalty. '[13] In short, several studies have concluded that professionals tend to assume a "cosmopolitan" orientation, manifesting itself in a lack of loyalty to particular organizations and a willingness to move from one employer to another, whereas only those less committed to professional skills are usually "locals" with strong feelings of loyalty to their organization.

Data gathered in our research on County Agency (the county welfare department which is described in the Appendix) allow us to further explore this problem and to test the hypothesis that there is an inverse relationship between professional commitment and organizational loyalty.[14] The index employed to measure a professional orientation among the social-work staff consists of two parts: (1) commitment to professional skills as indicated by some graduate training in social work, and (2) orientation to professional reference groups outside the agency. Considering the first criterion, it was felt that in an agency where the majority of workers lacked any graduate training in social work, the fact that a worker had started such training, regardless of how far he had as yet advanced, was indicative of superior commitment to professional skills. It should be emphasized that we are not concerned here with amount of education as such but that we use graduate courses in social work as an indicator of the worker's commitment to the profession and of his exposure to the professional subculture in social-work schools, where he comes into contact with norms and values that are independent of those promulgated by his employing agency.[15] With regard to reference-group orientation, workers who chose both professional people outside the agency and professional books and journals as two of the three sources from which they obtained most

[13] *Ibid.*, p. 466.

[14] For a fuller discussion of these data and findings, see W. Richard Scott, "A Case Study of Professional Workers in a Bureaucratic Setting," unpublished Ph.D. dissertation, Department of Sociology, University of Chicago, 1961. Only data from the County Agency study are utilized in this section because comparable data from the City Agency were not gathered. Specifically, we do not have any measures on orientation to the profession as opposed to the agency for City Agency workers. Throughout, we shall present data from both agency studies whenever they are available.

[15] Some graduate training in social work was found to be positively associated with the following characteristics: being female, Negro, single, of high seniority, from middle- or upper-class origins, deciding early to enter the field, holding few jobs prior to entering the field, and, if married, having few children. Some of these characteristics are, of course, interrelated.

intellectual and professional stimulation were considered to be oriented to outside reference groups.[16]

We expected that workers with graduate training (hence, high professional commitment) would be more likely to choose reference groups external to the agency. Table 1 shows that there was some ten-

TABLE 1. LOCATION OF REFERENCE GROUPS AND GRADUATE WORK

Graduate Training in Social Work	*Location of Reference Groups*	
	Outside Agency	*Inside Agency*
Yes	56%	36%
No	44%	64%
N (= 100%)	25	61

dency for workers with graduate study to choose outside reference groups in disproportionate numbers, but the relationship observed is far from pronounced. Therefore, instead of dealing only with the two pure types—professional and bureaucratic—we shall add to them the two mixed types, giving us four types of orientation, each corresponding to one of the four cells of Table 1. These four types are: (1) Professionals—workers having graduate training and choosing outside reference groups. (2) Reference group only—workers oriented to outside reference groups but lacking graduate training. (3) Training only—workers having graduate training but not choosing outside reference groups. (4) Bureaucrats—workers without graduate training and not oriented to outside reference groups. By retaining these four groups for our analysis, we shall be able not only to compare the two extreme orientations but also to distinguish the significance of commitment to skills from that of choice of reference group.

How successful is this attempt to differentiate workers by their orientation? One method of validation is to determine how workers in these categories differ on certain activities and attitudes that should be associated with the underlying orientations. Thus, workers with a professional orientation might be expected to attend more social-work conferences and to be more active in local welfare activities than workers with a bureaucratic orientation. Professionally oriented workers might

16 Inside agency sources of stimulation which completed the choice list furnished on this question were: colleagues in the agency; supervisor; division head; and the director of the agency. The stipulation that the professionals chosen be outside the agency under consideration carries with it no reflection on the quality of professionals within the agency. As our concern is with the possible conflicts between professional workers and bureaucratic structures, workers selecting reference groups outside these structures were thought to be exposing themselves to influences relatively "unstained" by bureaucratic "contamination."

be expected to express the belief that supervisors should have a graduate degree in social work rather than have only work experience in the field; they might also be expected to be more concerned than workers with a bureaucratic orientation about furthering the interests of clients. The data in Table 2 confirm these predictions and help to validate the measures of orientation.[17] Professionals were in all cases most likely to exhibit professional characteristics, bureaucrats, least likely, and mixed types tended to be intermediate.

TABLE 2. TYPE OF ORIENTATION AND PROFESSIONAL CHARACTERISTICS

Professional Characteristics	*Type of Orientation*			
	Professional	*Reference Group Only*	*Training Only*	*Bureaucratic*
Attended two or more conferences in past year	93%	81%	78%	72%
Active in two or more local welfare groups	46%	18%	18%	11%
Think supervisors should have an M.S.W. degree	86%	50%	45%	34%
Think assistance to clients should be increased	77%	73%	55%	41%
N (= 100%)	13	10	20	37

To ascertain the degree of loyalty of workers to their employing agency, workers were asked whether or not they would be tempted to leave their present job if a "fairly large private family-service agency" were established in their community. Those workers who stated that they would consider leaving their present position at a similar or lower salary were considered to exhibit low loyalty to County Agency. A second measure of loyalty was also utilized. Workers were asked whether or not they expected to be working in the agency "five years from now" and, if not, what they expected to be doing. Those who expected to leave the agency during this period but to go on working in the field of social welfare were considered to exhibit low loyalty.

[17] The numbers on which the percentages are based in Tables 2 to 5 vary slightly from question to question since some workers did not answer all questions. The numbers reported at the bottom of the table indicate the number of workers answering the question on which there was the *lowest* response.

The data presented in Table 3 indicate that professionals were somewhat more apt to be willing to leave and to expect to leave County Agency than were bureaucrats. These findings confirm the hypothesis derived from other studies that a professional orientation is inversely related to organizational loyalty. Professionals tend to be cosmopolitans and not locals. The data further suggest that reference-group orientation is more significant for loyalty than is training.[18]

TABLE 3. TYPE OF ORIENTATION AND LOYALTY TO THE AGENCY

Loyalty to County Agency	*Type of Orientation*			
	Professional	*Reference Group Only*	*Training Only*	*Bureaucratic*
Would leave present job for one in private agency	31%	27%	18%	8%
Expect to leave agency within five years	21%	27%	15%	6%
N (= 100%)	13	11	20	36

A study of nurses in several out-patient departments in Boston hospitals conducted by Bennis and his associates reports results that qualify the generalization that a professional orientation is typically associated with a cosmopolitan one and clarify the relationship between orientation to the profession and organizational loyalty.[19] Contrary to expectation, Bennis and his colleagues did not find a professional orientation among nurses to be associated with being a cosmopolitan rather than a local. The more professionally oriented nurses did not differ from others in their loyalty to the hospital, and they were *more* apt than others, not less, to express loyalty to the local work group. One possible explanation of these unanticipated findings is that they are due to the narrow visibility of the nurse's professional competence —her performance is observable only to her colleagues in the immediate work group, not to those outside the organization. The nurse who is committed to her professional skills expresses a high loyalty to her

[18] The influence of reference groups alone is indicated by the difference between the first and third columns and that between the second and fourth; the influence of training alone is indicated by the difference between the first and second columns and that between the third and fourth. In this table, the former differences are, on the average, larger than the latter.

[19] W. G. Bennis *et al.*, "Reference Groups and Loyalties in the Out-Patient Department," *Administrative Science Quarterly,* 2 (1958), pp. 481–500.

work group since only this group can give her praise and recognition for work well done.

If this interpretation is correct it should apply to other groups where professional performance is hidden from the view of all but the local work unit—groups such as social workers. But we have already reported that a professional orientation was inversely related to loyalty to the organization among social workers in County Agency, which is unlike the finding Bennis obtained for nurses and like that obtained by Gouldner and others. Moreover, loyalty to the local work group in County Agency, as indicated by a caseworker's unwillingness to be transferred to another agency division,[20] was unrelated to professional orientation, again failing to replicate the positive relationship obtained among nurses; in fact, there was a slight negative relationship between professional commitment and loyalty to work group in County Agency.[21]

These differences in findings can be explained by suggesting that the crucial underlying factor is not so much the visibility of performance as the nature of the limits of professional opportunity. If there is little opportunity for advancement *within the profession,* regardless of the organization by which a professional is employed, a commitment to professional skills comes into conflict with aspirations for advancement. Such limits apply to nurses, whose major opportunities for advancement involve forsaking nursing practice and going into administration, or possibly into teaching.[22] The more committed a nurse is to her professional skills, therefore, the less attractive will she find the formal reward of a promotion that removes her from the work for which she was trained, and the more she will have to rely on the informal rewards of being highly esteemed for her skills as a nurse by colleagues working in close association with her. Hence, commitment to nursing skills promotes an attachment to the local colleague group, although not necessarily to the entire hospital, since this organization is composed primarily not of colleagues but rather of non-nursing groups, and since one hospital offers from this standpoint no particular advantage over another. (Moreover, whatever differences there may be between hospitals in the opportunity to advance to specialized nursing

20 That divisions were perceived as the significant work groups in this agency is indicated by the fact that when workers were asked sociometric questions concerning the members of their "units" (groups of workers sharing the same supervisor) they almost invariably ignored this subgroup and instead reported peer choices extending throughout their division. Each division was housed in a single large room, and the largest one contained only about 30 workers.

21 If respondents are divided on the basis of professional commitment (training), we find that 64 per cent of the (33) committed workers and 78 per cent of the (49) others felt loyal to their group.

22 See Bennis *et al., op. cit.,* pp. 497–498.

positions are not reflected in a sample of nurses drawn from a variety of hospitals, such as that of the Bennis study.)

If, on the other hand, there is ample opportunity for advancement in a profession but this opportunity is much more restricted in some organizations than in others of the same type, commitment to the profession comes into conflict with loyalty to the organization and encourages a cosmopolitan orientation. Limits of this type would seem to apply to the faculties of small colleges, such as the one studied by Gouldner. These faculty members knew that research opportunities and other professional advantages were superior in large universities, and thus those most interested in cultivating their professional skills were usually the ones most eager to leave the college and move to "greener pastures." The same considerations apply to the public welfare agency. Since the opportunity for doing professional casework was not as good there as in private agencies, professional commitment motivated workers to hope for positions in private agencies, thus making them less loyal to their present employer. Caplow's and McGee's scholars and Wilensky's intellectuals were in a similar situation, since they could strive for a better professional position in other universities or with other employers. We suggest, then, that a commitment to professional skills will be associated with low organizational loyalty only if professional opportunities are more limited in the organization under consideration than in others with which it competes for manpower. In other words, only if it is the structure of the organization rather than the structure of the profession that restricts opportunities for professional advancement do we expect professional commitment to be accompanied by a cosmopolitan orientation.

When a given organization curtails opportunities for professional development, the locals who express strong loyalty to the organization do so at the expense of a weakened affiliation with their profession. They may surrender their professional ambitions in favor of administrative aspirations, or simply restrict their level of aspiration and remain content to carry on their work in ways defined by the organization. Locals who choose the first of these alternatives and become successful administrators may, in turn, become "cosmopolitans" oriented to administrative positions in larger and better organizations; their skills have qualified them to compete in a new market. Those who choose the second alternative may devote their energies to the development of new skills outside their original profession: the research scientist may attempt to become a good teacher of undergraduates, and the social worker may obtain satisfaction from becoming an expert in public assistance.

Significance of Professional Reference Group. So far, our discussion of the professional reference group has centered on its influence on or-

ganizational loyalty. We now shall consider its significance for behavior toward clients. It has been suggested that professional reference groups function to provide standards of judgment and conduct, as well as social support for living up to these standards, for individuals working in varied organizational contexts. In social work, a primary concern of these standards is to maintain and improve the quality of service rendered to clients. This is also a concern of social-work agencies. In terms of general service principles, there is no conflict. But general principles must always be adapted, and often compromised, in applying them to specific cases. Hence, the basic question is, what are the criteria that govern these necessary compromises—professional standards or administrative considerations? In a complex public-welfare organization, administrative requirements cannot be ignored, especially since the agency is also subject to pressures from other publics, such as taxpayers, as represented by the legislature, who are interested in keeping expenditures at a minimum. For workers who are oriented to professional casework, administrative adjustments made in the agency's program and procedures as accommodations to local circumstances or pressure groups are seen as defections from professional standards.[23] For these reasons we hypothesized that a commitment to professional standards would make workers more critical of agency practice and less apt to conform to established administrative procedures.

These predictions were tested using data from County Agency. As Table 4 shows, professionally oriented workers were more critical of their agency than were workers not so oriented. They were more apt

TABLE 4. TYPE OF ORIENTATION AND CRITICISM OF THE AGENCY

Criticism of Agency	*Type of Orientation*			
	Professional	*Reference Group Only*	*Training Only*	*Bureaucratic*
Agency is far from being professional	43%	9%	10%	5%
Discrepancy between social work theory and agency practice is large	31%	24%	18%	8%
N (= 100%)	13	11	21	38

[23] Various examples of conflict between the demands of the taxpaying public and those of professional social workers, and between the requirements of administration and professional standards, are cited in Harold L. Wilensky and Charles N. Lebeaux, *Industrial Society and Social Welfare,* New York: Russell Sage Foundation, 1958, pp. 179, 245–246.

"strongly" to agree with the statement that the agency has a "considerable distance to go before it can claim to be offering a fully adequate, professional welfare program," and they were more likely to believe that there was a "large" discrepancy between "professional standards and social-work theory on the one hand and the actual work performed by this agency on the other." A professional orientation was also associated with a tendency to criticize agency policies and procedures explicitly for interfering with service to clients. Table 5 shows that workers identified with the profession were more likely than bureaucratically oriented ones to feel that the laws under which the agency operated, its administrative procedures, and specifically the responsibility to check the qualifications of clients interfered with casework service.[24]

TABLE 5. TYPE OF ORIENTATION AND CRITICISM OF ADMINISTRATIVE POLICIES

Criticism of Policies	*Type of Orientation*			
	Professional	*Reference Group Only*	*Training Only*	*Bureaucratic*
Laws limit casework	77%	82%	73%	32%
Procedures interfere with helping clients	50%	36%	36%	21%
Checking on clients interferes with casework	29%	18%	14%	14%
N (= 100%)	13	11	22	36

One might assume that a professional orientation not only increases interest in doing casework, as these findings imply, but also improves the quality of service. But what is good performance in terms of professional criteria may be poor performance in terms of administrative standards, and when there is such a conflict professional identification may well lead to failure to live up to administrative standards. A measure of such failure to conform to official standards was obtained from the formal records of the agency by compiling the number of "de-

24 Interestingly enough, professionally oriented workers were less prone than bureaucrats to criticize the agency for changing procedures too often. Such criticism was most affected by professional training, that is, workers with some graduate work were less critical of changes in procedures than were untrained workers. This finding is similar to that of an earlier study which showed that the more competent officials were less resistant to change. (See Peter M. Blau, *The Dynamics of Bureaucracy,* Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1955, pp. 197–198.) These results suggest that knowledge and skills, by lessening anxiety, reduce rigidity.

linquent" cases for each worker for one year. Every case accepted for service by the agency was officially classified, on the basis of how severe the problems were, as requiring visits at specified time intervals. A case not visited on schedule was considered delinquent. This administrative solution to the problems posed by large caseloads created rigid schedules, which recurrently faced workers with the dilemma of visiting one case because a visit was administratively required or visiting another case in urgent need of attention and thereby adding a delinquency to their record. Hence, the number of delinquent cases a worker had per month is used as an indicator of his willingness to rebel from the dictates of administrative procedures in the interests of client services.[25] Professionally oriented workers were, indeed, found to have disproportionately high numbers of delinquencies. As in most other comparisons, the crucial factor was professional reference group rather than graduate training. Of the 11 workers oriented to professional colleagues outside the agency, one-third had many delinquencies, in contrast to only 2 per cent of the 41 without such an outside reference group.[26] Apparently, an orientation to the profession as a reference group makes a worker somewhat independent of organizational pressures and thus more inclined to deviate from administrative procedures in the interest of professional service to clients.[27]

The Public

The Orientation of the Public to Government Organizations. One serious shortcoming of most organizational research, including our own, is that there is no investigation of the publics related to the organization. Studies of organizations have not included within the scope of their analysis the publics directly in contact with the organization, let alone the larger public which is potentially in contact. The neglect of this aspect of organizational research means that a one-sided picture of the

[25] This index is not perfect since delinquencies could result from the actions of a poor worker who neither took care of emergency cases nor of his regular visits.

[26] These data were available for only 52 workers; in general, only full-time workers carrying regular public-assistance and child-welfare caseloads were included. "Many delinquencies" are operationally defined as 12 or more per month for Aid to Dependent Children caseloads and 2 or more per month for Old Age Assistance and child-welfare caseloads.

[27] Data from City Agency suggest that workers oriented to professional service (using a criterion different from that applied in County Agency) were also more independent from peer-group pressures than workers not so oriented. The former were more apt than those oriented to bureaucratic procedures to differ from the majority of their work group in their judgments of the supervisor. See Peter M. Blau, "Patterns of Deviation in Work Groups," *Sociometry*, 23 (1960), pp. 254–256.

official-client relation has been constructed: we are beginning to know something about the orientations of officials to clients, whereas we know little of the orientations of clients to officials and organizations.

Studies of public opinion toward government agencies, notably a recent one by Janowitz and his associates, make an important contribution to a fuller understanding of official-client relations, although such survey research is no substitute for specific organization studies that include data on the organization's clientele. In the Janowitz study a representative sample of 764 adults in the Detroit area were interviewed in 1954.[28] The respondents were questioned about a variety of federal, state, and local government agencies that have contacts with a wide public, such as the Bureau of Internal Revenue, the state and county police, and the public schools.

Information and opinions were sought from the sample of respondents concerning four basic problems. First, the study assessed the amount of the public's knowledge concerning government organizations. By any standard, this knowledge was very limited. For example, nearly half of the respondents did not know the amount of earnings at which income tax started, and only one out of ten knew approximately what portion of the national budget was spent on defense and foreign aid. The knowledge concerning specific agencies and their operations was even more limited, particularly among those who had not had any actual contact with the agency in question. Persons of low socioeconomic status, Negroes, and women tended to be even less well informed than others.

Second, the study was interested in the "worth" of government services to the people. The majority of respondents felt that the government was serving the public interest well. However, a sizable minority (41 per cent) thought that the government took more from the people in the form of taxes than it returned to them in services. There seemed to be considerable ambivalence toward government service, particularly among the underprivileged. They favored the extension of government services but were dissatisfied with the burdens that the government imposed on them. The proportion dissatisfied rose to 59 per cent among lower-class Negroes.

The third problem examined was that of morality in public administration. Only 13 per cent of the respondents thought that many government officials were corrupt, but two-thirds of the sample believed that political pull influenced the decisions of officials. In general, there

[28] Morris Janowitz *et al., Public Administration and the Public,* Ann Arbor: Institute of Public Administration, University of Michigan, 1958, especially pp. 15–27, 29–71. For a study of public attitudes toward big business, see Burton R. Fisher and Stephen B. Withey, *Big Business as the People See It,* Ann Arbor: Institute for Social Research, University of Michigan, 1951.

was a lack of confidence in the government's ability to extend impartial treatment to its clients, and this feeling increased among those in the lower socio-economic groups.

The fourth major area explored was the prestige of public officials. Such prestige has traditionally been high in continental Europe but low in the United States. Using as a benchmark a study conducted by White in 1929,[29] Janowitz and his associates found that there had been a considerable increase in the status of public officials in the last generation—so much so that a slight majority of the persons questioned said that they would rather work for the government than for a private firm, pay held constant. Only a small number of the respondents questioned by White took this position. Attitudes had also changed toward officials in other respects. For example, whereas 60 per cent of White's respondents considered private employees to be more courteous than public ones in 1929, only 29 per cent of Janowitz's sample did in 1954. Janowitz, like White, found that those for whom public employment had the highest prestige value tended to come from the bottom of the social structure, possibly because the job security characteristic of civil service seems particularly attractive to this group whose jobs are typically so insecure. Interestingly enough, however, public employees and their relatives tended to accord lower prestige to public employment than did others.

The Janowitz study provides information on the general context of public opinion within which government organizations must function. But attitudes of the public towards various types of organizations differ, of course, providing a more specific context of public opinion for each type. To complement our research on the internal structure of two social welfare agencies, we shall briefly review a few studies dealing with public attitudes toward this type of organization and the prestige of its members.

The first study provides a picture of social agencies as viewed by a group of white residents living in two depressed areas of Chicago in 1952.[30] Since a large proportion of those interviewed had regular contacts with the organizations they were asked to discuss, this study deals essentially with the attitudes of clients toward welfare agencies. Borash and his colleagues report that almost all of their respondents had postponed making formal application for public welfare until they had exhausted all their own resources as well as the informal sources of

[29] Leonard D. White, *The Prestige Value of Public Employment*, Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1929.

[30] Saul Borash *et al.*, "Conceptions of Social Agencies, Community Resources and the Problems of a Depressed Community," unpublished M.A. thesis, Department of Sociology, University of Chicago, 1952, pp. 113–168. A total of 159 respondents were interviewed, 95 interviews were conducted in the two areas and an additional 64 in the waiting rooms of the social agencies.

assistance in their neighborhood. Agency service was evaluated not in terms of official policies or other general criteria but in terms of the treatment the respondent had received in his contacts with the agency and from his particular caseworker. Generally, there was much dissatisfaction: 74 per cent of the respondents complained that they were treated as inferiors, 69 per cent said they were kept waiting too long on their visits to the agencies; 58 per cent felt that they received insufficient funds from these organizations; and 81 per cent expressed unfavorable attitudes toward the caseworker, the representative of the welfare agency. Such widespread dissatisfaction among clients, regardless of its source, cannot but hamper the operations of social agencies and cause difficulties for their personnel. Of course, we do not know how typical these opinions are of those held by welfare clients in general.

Turning briefly to the prestige of the caseworker, a national opinion survey reported that the social worker in public welfare was accorded less prestige than most other professional public employees, being given a status approximately equal to that of skilled blue-collar workers, reporters, and bookkeepers.[31] Studies reporting the self-evaluation of social workers show that they tend to rank themselves roughly in the same prestige grouping as does the general public.[32]

We can only speculate on the ways in which widespread client dissatisfaction and low prestige of officials affect the operation of welfare departments. But recruitment of new workers, turnover of personnel, and level of job satisfaction are probably only the most obvious of the areas adversely affected.

Client Characteristics and Department Organization. It is perhaps a truism to say that organizations will reflect the characteristics of the publics they serve. A technical high school differs in predictable ways from a college-preparatory school, and an upper-middle-class church is unlike the mission church of the same denomination in the slums. While such differences seem to be important and pervasive, there has been little attempt to relate client characteristics systematically to organizational structures. As a step in this direction, we have analyzed some aspects of two departments within County Agency from this point of view.

Although no data were collected on the client groups served by this agency, we do know something about their characteristics, particu-

31 National Opinion Research Center, "Jobs and Occupations," Reinhard Bendix and Seymour M. Lipset (eds.), *Class, Status and Power,* Glencoe, Ill.: Free Press, 1953, pp. 412–413.

32 See, for example, Norman Polansky *et al.,* "Social Workers in Society," *Social Work Journal,* 34 (1953), pp. 74–80; and R. Clyde White, "Prestige of Social Work and the Social Worker," *Social Work Journal,* 36 (1955), pp. 21–23, 33.

larly about the differences between the clients of the Public Assistance Division (PAD) and those of the Child Welfare Division (CWD). PAD clients came to the agency to apply for assistance under one of the categorical programs. They appeared to occupy a position clearly subordinate to the worker since they had come to request help and had to accept it on terms defined by the agency or do without. On the other hand, the clients served by CWD were, technically, dependent children. However, serving these children involved the workers in client relationships with adults who were not only requesting a service of the agency but also providing one; these were the foster-home parents and the adoptive parents who furnished homes for children. These parent surrogates were not in a subordinate position to the agency but rather enjoyed some measure of power because they could withdraw their contributions of service and thereby seriously impair the functioning of the placement program.

How did these differences in the power of the clientele affect the structure of the two departments? First, caseloads in CWD were less than half the size of caseloads in PAD; this arrangement would seem to indicate that administrators were concerned to provide more regular and adequate service to CWD clients.[33] A second differentiating characteristic was the assignment of work in the two divisions. In PAD, clients were assigned to workers entirely on a geographic basis, without regard to the peculiar problems of the case. By contrast, assignments in CWD were made on a case-by-case basis by the division head, a procedure that allowed cases with special problems to be given to the more competent and experienced workers. Further, the geographical method of assignment in PAD necessitated a periodic reshuffling of clients among the workers when the distribution of cases became inequitable, and also a transfer of the case whenever a client changed residence; neither of these disruptions of worker-client relations occurred in CWD. Thus, in PAD the professional principle of the importance of a stable and continuing relation between worker and client was sacrificed for the distinctly bureaucratic principle of the interchangeability of one worker for another.

These differences between divisions were formal and explicit in character. In addition, some informal differences developed. Data from the questionnaire revealed that although all divisions were officially considered to be equal in status and there were no differences in qualifications or salaries, CWD enjoyed much higher prestige than did PAD

33 This extreme difference in amount of worker time allocated to a given case was probably also a function of the amount of responsibility assumed by workers in the two divisions. CWD was legally responsible for the welfare of the children assigned to it; PAD did not assume such legal responsibility.

among workers.[34] A final difference was the racial composition of workers in the two divisions. In the agency as a whole 57 per cent of the workers were white; but in CWD the proportion of white workers was 73 per cent, and in PAD it was only 41 per cent, although there were certainly no explicit policies to account for this unequal distribution.

Some differences between CWD and PAD were not related to differences in their clientele, but many of those noted may well have been. Although our conclusions must be highly tentative, being based on a comparison of only these two cases, it appears that the clients with the higher socio-economic status and greater power enjoyed more attention from workers and more stable relations with them, and that formally instituted procedures served to maintain these differential conditions. Moreover, the agency division serving the clients with superior status and power was more highly esteemed among workers, and it was largely staffed by workers with culturally preferred ethnic characteristics.

An Organized Public. In many organizations the public-in-contact is an aggregate of people unrelated to one another, who have only intermittent contact with the institution. But in other organizations this public is actually a part of the organization,[35] and under these conditions it develops its own social structure. Such publics-in-contact are found, for example, in prisons, mental hospitals, and schools. A distinctive social structure also characterizes some publics-in-contact that are not a part of the organization, such as enemy armies and firms supplying the needs or buying the products of an organization. The latter situations, however, lead to an analysis of the relations between organizations, and we shall put this discussion over to a later chapter. When the public-in-contact is a part of the organization, it often organizes itself in opposition to the organization. This situation is to be expected in commonweal organizations such as prisons, where this public is an enemy against whom the institution protects society. But it also occurs in service organizations, where the public is a clientele whose interests are served—for example, in schools and mental hospitals—since clients do not necessarily agree with what the professionals in the organization judge to be in their best interests. We shall discuss three illustrations of an organized public, based on research in prisons, in mental hospitals, and in high schools.

In the prison organization, the problems faced by guards often induce them to single out some prisoners to help control the rest, as was

[34] Of the workers, 34 per cent ranked CWD highest in prestige of the four agency divisions, while 3 per cent ranked PAD highest.

[35] See Erving Goffman, "Characteristics of Total Institutions," Walter Reed Army Institute of Research, *Symposium of Preventive and Social Psychiatry*, Washington, D.C.: U.S. Government Printing Office, 1957, pp. 43–48.

mentioned in Chapter II, and the guards, thereby, foster the development of an informal organization among inmates. Although this informal organization facilitates short-run control over prisoners, it undermines long-range control, as indicated in a study by Sykes and Messinger.[36] They suggest that the system of common values and norms that emerged among inmates, and the set of roles associated with it, helped the prisoners face the deprivations of prison life. For this social system enabled and, indeed, encouraged the prisoner "to reject his rejectors," and it provided him with social support from a community where he was not an outcast. To serve these functions, the informal organization exerted social pressures on the prisoner to refrain both from obeying the prison authorities and from taking advantage of fellow prisoners. The role of "right guy" most closely conformed with inmate norms and was accorded the highest status; roles that departed from the norms elicited disapproval, since they constituted a threat to the cohesiveness of the inmate group.[37] Such an inmate social system, whatever its function for prisoners or for the prison, clearly impedes efforts to control and rehabilitate criminals.

Caudill and his associates, in research of unusual design, were able to collect data on the informal organization of patients in a mental hospital.[38] Caudill entered the hospital in the guise of a patient, his real identity and purpose being known only to the top administrator; his data were collected by participant observation. The study suggests that the group structure that developed among the patients provided its members with the opportunity for "playing" a variety of social roles and supplied social support. The formal organization was unaware of this social structure among patients, and the group, being ignored, tended to turn inward and insulate itself further from the larger organization. Here, then, the client organization was not hostile to the host organization but the failure of hospital officials to recognize the client group structure and its needs led to friction between the two organizations.

A recent study of twelve high schools by Coleman reveals that the student prestige structure tends to conflict with the academic goals of the formal organization.[39] In most of the schools included in the study,

[36] Gresham M. Sykes and Sheldon L. Messinger, "The Inmate Social System," Richard A. Cloward *et al.*, *Theoretical Studies in Social Organization of the Prison*, New York: Social Science Research Council, 1960 (Pamphlet No. 15), pp. 5–19.

[37] For a discussion of a number of social roles identified among prisoners, see Gresham M. Sykes, *The Society of Captives*, Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1958, pp. 85–107.

[38] William Caudill *et al.*, "Social Structure and Interaction Processes on a Psychiatric Ward," *American Journal of Orthopsychiatry*, 22 (1952), pp. 314–334.

[39] James S. Coleman, "The Adolescent Subculture and Academic Achievement," *American Journal of Sociology*, 65 (1960), pp. 337–347.

the peer group rewarded students for their achievements in athletics and in other extracurricular activities with high prestige, while achievement in academic areas earned a student far less prestige, if any. It was found that the less value students in a school placed on obtaining good grades, the lower was the intelligence (as measured by tests) of students making high grades. The implication is that if scholastic achievement does not earn a student prestige in his peer group then the most intelligent students do not seek to attain it, and the educational goals of the formal organization are consequently thwarted.

It would appear that a clear recognition on the part of organization officials of the existence and nature of the structures linking together the members of their publics-in-contact would allow them to operate more effectively. Service organizations, in particular, would profit by harnessing the forces for support and control operating in their client groups—forces that now are often at cross purposes with their own.

Conflicts with Clients

Who Are the Aggressive Clients? Conflicts between members of the organization and its public occur not only in commonweal organizations, where they are expected, but also in other types, where they are not. Conflicts occur between service organizations and their clients, and between business organizations and their customers. In discussing some empirical studies of conflicts with clients we shall at the same time illustrate the difference between a sociopsychological approach to this phenomenon and a structural approach.

A study on aggressiveness among recipients of unemployment insurance conducted in the depth of the depression by Lasswell and Almond is an example of the sociopsychological approach.[40] Workers at the complaint desk were asked to distinguish between aggressive and nonaggressive clients, and a sample of 100 of each type was selected.[41] Background data on these 200 cases were then assembled from agency records in order to determine the characteristics associated with aggressiveness. Almond and Lasswell found that the aggressive clients had been in contact with the agency over a longer period of time than the others, and that more of them had been employed by the government. According to court records, more of the aggressive than of the nonaggressive clients had broken the law, and more had had contacts with

[40] Gabriel Almond and Harold D. Lasswell, "Aggressive Behavior by Clients Toward Public Relief Administrators," *American Political Science Review*, 28 (1934), pp. 643–655.

[41] Aggressiveness was quite loosely defined and appeared to include mere self-assertiveness on the part of clients.

penal institutions. In contrast to the nonagressive clients, aggressive clients tended to come from higher income and education groups, and more of them had been employed in occupations dealing with people rather than with things. More aggressive clients were of native birth, and more were raised in urban areas.

The findings were interpreted in the following manner: Familiarity with government agencies in general, and this one in particular, encourages assertive conduct that may lead to conflict. Experience in dealing with people also promotes assertive conduct in interaction with officials. Resentment against having been penalized by the government may be displaced in the form of aggression against the present organization and its representatives. Finally, deprivation is relative: a person of higher socio-economic status is probably more frustrated than one of lower status by being on assistance, and his middle-class standards may make him feel more guilty about it; such frustration and guilt lead to aggressive behavior.

The focus of this study is clearly on personality characteristics of individuals rather than on social structure. It explains the observed conflicts by reference to the internal and psychological processes that motivated them. Note that the approach is *socio*psychological, that is, that psychological differences are traced back to the past social experiences that produced them. For example, the authors do not assume that aggressiveness is an inherent trait that accounts for both the tendency to violate laws and the tendency to have conflicts with officials, but suggest that the social experience of having been arrested engenders negative attitudes toward government officials. The sociopsychological approach asks: what are the past experiences and the characteristics of participants that foster conflict? But one can also ask, and this is the structural approach: what are the conditions in the social situation that promote conflict? Both approaches deal with the influence of social conditions on patterns of conduct, but the former examines the influence of *past* social conditions on personality characteristics and hence on conduct, whereas the latter is concerned with the influence of *present* social conditions on conduct.

Let us consider an illustration of the structural approach.

What Social Conditions Make Waitresses Cry? Whyte in his study of social relations in restaurants observed that waitresses sometimes broke down and cried.[42] After careful observation of the situations in which such behavior occurred, he concluded that it was the result of cross-pressures on the waitress. The nature of these pressures can be clarified by analyzing the "flow of demand" in the organization, that is, by

[42] William F. Whyte, *Human Relations in the Restaurant Industry*, New York: McGraw-Hill, 1948, pp. 64–81.

studying who makes demands on whom.[43] Demands that flow contrary to status lines—from lower to higher status—create conflicts. Thus, male cooks and countermen did not expect to be ordered around by females, yet the waitresses often had occasion to tell them what food to prepare or serve. Whyte found that this discrepancy produced conflicts, which could be reduced if some sort of impersonal barrier was erected at the point of encounter. For example, a spindle on which waitresses placed their food orders reduced tensions and conflicts by changing the flow of demand, since it enabled the counterman to fill the orders at his discretion instead of at the command of the waitress and then tell her that the food was ready.

Orders from superiors made demands on the waitress, as did the "orders" of the customers, and even the requests for help from her coworkers. A waitress was often caught in the cross currents of these demands, as when an impatient customer insisted on services that upset her routine. The tensions produced by these conflicting pressures sometimes built up to a point where they exploded, that is, made the waitress break down and cry.

Whyte's analysis illustrates a structural as distinguished from a sociopsychological focus. He does not discuss the psychological traits of customers or waitresses. He deals neither with the typical personality of the waitress nor with the past experience and psychological characteristics that distinguish those that cry often from those that rarely do. He explains an observed pattern of conduct not in terms of personality traits, even socially acquired ones, but in terms of existing social conditions. The social element in the approach is not the significance of past social experiences for present personality characteristics but the significance of the present structure of social relations for patterns of conduct. The question that Whyte attempts to answer, then, is: how does the social structure give rise to conflict? However, one can also ask how conflict affects the work-group structure, and this question too exemplifies the structural approach.

How Do Conflicts with Clients Affect Work-Group Structure? A study conducted by Blau in a public employment agency is concerned with this problem.[44] Anyone seeking employment was entitled to avail himself of the services of this public agency, but recipients of unemployment-insurance benefits were obligated to do so. Conflicts with clients developed in two situations: when a client needed a job and the interviewer decided he was not qualified for any of those available, and

[43] This concept is derived from a combination of two earlier concepts: "flow of work" and "organization of action," as discussed *ibid.*, and in Conrad Arensberg, "Behavior and Organization," John H. Rohrer and Muzafer Sherif (eds.), *Social Psychology at the Crossroads*, New York: Harper, 1951, pp. 324–352.

[44] See Blau, *The Dynamics of Bureaucracy*, *op. cit.*, pp. 82–96.

when a client was referred to a job although he did not want it. The latter usually occurred in cases of temporary lay-offs where the client was not seeking employment but had come to the agency only because continued receipt of his unemployment benefits required it. These conflicts with clients aroused tensions for officials, directly and also indirectly, by creating guilt feelings, particularly if an interviewer found it necessary to use sanctions against uncooperative clients, because most of the interviewers were fundamentally oriented to providing service and helping clients, not to policing them. These tensions impeded operations in various ways; for example, officials might displace their aggression onto subsequent clients after an unpleasant episode.

Discussions among colleagues served to relieve the tensions engendered by conflicts with clients. Informal observation over a period of several months and interviews with the staff revealed that there were three topics of conversation prevalent among staff officials during working hours. The most frequent topic involved complaints about clients. An interviewer would, in effect, say to a colleague, "Look what this client did to me!" These discussions served as an escape valve for releasing aggressive feelings against clients in a harmless form. But this could not have been their sole function, for they often occurred after an official had penalized a client, perhaps by sending a notification that might disqualify him from further unemployment benefits. In these cases, the practice did not serve to relieve pent-up aggression, which had already been expressed directly by penalizing the client, but to obtain social support for one's decisions and thereby mitigate feelings of guilt. The sympathetic listener, who laughed at the client's stupidity or expressed indignation at his impertinence, implicitly justified the speaker's punitive or inconsiderate action by condemning the client's behavior, and this social approval relieved impending feelings of guilt.

A second type of discussion took the form of joking about clients. Ridicule is a form of aggression, but it also relieves guilt. The laughter elicited by a story about a client constituted social evidence that his behavior was ludicrous or incongruous, thus placing the blame for the client's troubles on his own shoulders and relieving the official from having failed to mitigate these difficulties; it conveyed the message, "Nobody could have helped such an impossible person!" This practice is analogous to that of teachers who tell one another jokes about the "ridiculous" answers students give on examinations, thereby eliciting laughter that absolves them from feeling guilty for not having taught their students better. Joking about clients not only relieved tensions created by the work situation but also strengthened group cohesiveness by uniting its members in laughing together. Simultaneously, however, the practice of ridiculing clients established and perpetuated anti-

client norms in the work group by legitimating inconsiderate treatment of clients.

Finally, some interviewers did not joke or complain about clients but often told colleagues about outstanding clients they had encountered. This third topic of conversation was characteristic of the interviewers who were most considerate in their treatment of clients. Their sympathetic attitudes toward clients constituted overconformity with the service ideals in violation of group norms, according to which concern with helping clients must be tempered by willingness to "put them in their place" when necessary. By selecting for their conversations with colleagues accounts of exceptional clients who clearly deserved special consideration, interviewers with overly favorable attitudes toward clients sought to escape the onus of being defined as deviant by soliciting social approval of their treatment of clients. In these cases, the listeners were invited to agree, the extremely considerate treatment was surely justified. Thus, officials felt compelled to seek the social approval of colleagues for both inconsiderate and overly considerate treatment of clients, because the former violated their service philosophy and the latter their unofficial norms. These discussions about clients furnished social support and reduced tensions, thus contributing to effective operations in the employment agency. But they did so at a social cost: joking and complaining resulted in less considerate treatment of clients. The organization benefited from smoother operations at the cost of a modification of service principles. The work group made a net gain; the clients had to bear the brunt of the cost.

This study provides another illustration of the structural approach. The social situation is not taken as given, as in the sociopsychological approach, but as problematical. The investigator asked how observed patterns influence social structure and social processes, not how given social conditions influence personality structure and psychological processes.

Concluding Remarks

This chapter began with an examination of the orientations of members of organizations and continued with a discussion of the orientations of the public. We first analyzed the orientations of members to their organization and to its clients, with particular emphasis on two conflicting orientations: the professional and the bureaucratic. Next we considered the orientation of the public to government organizations in general and to public welfare agencies in particular. At this point our focus began to shift from orientations—a sociopsychological

datum—to more structural considerations. We briefly examined the connections between the characteristics of clients and those of the departments that served them. Then we discussed the emergent organizations of publics that are a part of a formal organization. Finally, we contrasted the sociopsychological and the structural approach to the study of conflict between clients and officials, and with the latter approach we came to focus on the structure of social relations among the members of formal organizations. But we shall soon show that it is not enough merely to focus on the organized social relations in a group. To isolate the significance of group structure requires the use of systematic comparisons of a number of work groups, a method illustrated in the next chapter.